CHAPTER – 2

THE DARŚANAS OF INDIAN PHILOSOPHY

2.0 Introduction and the Essence of Indian Darśanas

The word 'Darśana' means 'vision' or philosophical perspective. People look at the world and their lives from subjective viewpoints. For instance, a devotee sees a flower as an object to be used for worship. At the same time to the flower seller it is a commodity for profit making and to the beauty-conscious lady, it is an ornament to enhance her beauty. In the perspective of the Botanist a flower is the vegetative part of the plant that takes part in its reproductive function.

In short, the Darśanas are the subjective impressions formed by the intuitive minds of the Ṛṣis, and hence they might signify different views. The different Darśanas deal with the eternal question of how man should live in this world, and they discuss the aims, objectives and meaning of human life.

It has often been remarked that the shad Darśanas are the basis of Hinduism, but on close scrutiny, it can be seen that though they are dependent on the Hindu scriptures, they do not prescribe a rigorous pattern of religious belief. Moreover the six Āstika Darśanas have different perspectives regarding the existence of God also.

The seeds of the Astika Darśanas are contained in the Upaniṣads, which constitute the essence of the vedas. Among the four vedas viz., the Ṛg, the Sama, the Yajur and the Atharva, the first three are known as 'traiveda', which have a higher authority. Each veda has three divisions called the Samhita, the Brāhmaṇa and the Āraṇyakas. The vedas are believed to have been written about 1500 BC.

There are different views of religious thought such as polytheism, henotheism, monotheism and monism in the vedas.

The philosophical thoughts of India have a tradition that extends to more than 5000 years. As Prof. Hiriyanna observes during this period there was no possibility of it being influenced by outside sources. All the six Āstika darśanas accept the prominence given to the vedas as sources of knowledge. On the other hand those who negate the truth behind the vedas are termed Nāstika. For instance, the Nyāya Darśana is universally recognized as a science of rhetoric which puts emphasis on the means to gather knowledge, different categories of knowledge, and more importantly, the aspects in which care should be taken while engaging in arguments. It is significant that Ācārya Gothama, who is regarded as the author of Nyāya sūtra does not say anything about God in the text. It can be seen that the existence of God is not relevant in Nyāya Darśana at all. Gotama discusses only 16 topics such as pramāṇas, prameyam,

samśayam, prayojana,. dṛṣtantham, sidhāntam, avayavam, tharkam, nirṇayam, vāvam, jalpam, vithanda, hetvabhasam, tehalam, jāti and nigrahasthanam. He does not deal with the origin of the world, the creator of the world etc.

Vaiśeṣika, on the other hand tries to analyse the study of everything in the world. It categorises all that is found in the world into seven padarthas. It is said that dravya has 9 varieties, which are bhoomi, jalam, thejas, vayu, ākasam, kālam, dik, ātma and manas among the last five are nitya or eternal. There is nothing such as creation. The atoms of the first four are eternal. They have no creation or destruction. As modern theory of atom says they can neither be created nor destroyed. Hence it logically follows that the concept of God as creator is not relevant or required.

Sāṅkhya goes one step forward and negates even the process of creation. The Sāṅkhya Darśana, which says that there is Karyam is the transformation of 'Karanam' holds that there is no creation, but only evolution, and denies etc. role of the creator.

Yoga also questions the traditional conception of God. The Yogis conceive God not as the creator of the world, or the gives of results according to Karma. Patañjali defines God as:

क्लेशकर्मविपाकाशयैरपरामृष्टः पुरुषविशेषः ईश्वरः |

which means "God is the ātma or puruṣa who has no desires, and the actions to fulfill them, and the resultant experiences and difficulties. Moreever the Yoga sūtras suggest that anybody can attain the qualities of Īśvara by the practice of Yoga.

Pūrva Mīmāmsa puts emphasis on the vedas. Though some regard the vedas are made by God, the Mīmāmsa Darśana considers it as apouruṣeyam (not man made) only Ṛṣis are not considered the inventors of the mantras, they have only discovered them. Swami Vivekananda's opinion is that the vedic scriptures are eternal truths, which have no beginning or end. According to Pūrva Mīmāmsa there is a system which sees that a particular karma has a particular result, just as touching the fire will burn the hand.

Uttara Mīmāmsa or Vedānta considers man as not different from God or Brahma, which is the Karmam and the kārya. Since there is no creation or destruction, but only transformation the creator's significance becomes insignificant.

The basis of Indian philosophy is the spiritual experiences of the Ṛṣis of ancient India. Later they developed into various branches of philosophical visions according to the principles of reason and dictates of cause and effect. For many centuries these streams of thought have succeeded in influencing the way of life and vision of the people of India.

These Darśanas have enabled the Indian mind to outlive the challenges of repeated invasions of foreign forces and devastating natural calamities like famines and pestilence in the past.

Traditionally Indian Darśanas have been grouped into two opposing categories called Aṣthika and Naṣthika. While the former group of Darśanas follow the perspective of the Vedas, the latter deviate from the Vedic path of spirituality. The Aṣthika Darśanas include Nyāya, Vaiśeṣika, Sāṅkya, Yoga, and the Mīmāmsa or Vedānta philosophies. The Darśanas that are more dependent on aspects of logic and reason like the Buddhist thoughts, Jaina religious perspectives, atheistic observations of Cārvaka etc. belong to the Naṣthika group of Darśanas.

The aim of Indian Darśanas is not merely to enable people to lead a righteous path of life, but more than that, to remove from their mind the darkness of ignorance so that they might be liberated from the bondage of life and death. In other words Indian Darśanas provide not only a vision of life, but the right way of life also. That is why the Darśanas give so much prominence to Pramāṇas. The matters which have prama or prominence are called Pramāṇas.

Pramāṇas deal with the branch of knowledge called epistemology which tries to answer questions like “how do we know?” Our methods of perception and instruments of knowledge can divide the establishment of

the cognition of a thing. Unlike in western thoughts Indian philosophy does not attempt to clarify ideas only. It becomes a meaningful search for the experience of Reality.

The Aṣthika Darśanas of Indian philosophy believe in the authority of the Vedas, where as the Nāstika schools like the Cārvaka, the Buddhist and the Jaina reject the dogmas of the Vedas.

2.1 Introducing the Darśanas

The word Pramāṇa signifies the essential means of arriving at valid knowledge or prama.

प्रमाणं प्रमाणम्

There are diverse views in regard to the nature and scope of Pramāṇas. Basically speaking, the Pramāṇas are three in their nature. They are pratyakṣa or perception, anumāna or inference and śabda or verbal testimony. The general term for the results arrived at by means of the several Pramāṇas is Darśana which literally means ‘sight’ or ‘vision’. What the Indian mind aspired for it in philosophy is not indirect knowledge, but a direct vision of the ultimate truth. Therefore the word ‘Darśana’ expresses the distinguishing feature of Indian philosophy in general. Darśana is a philosophical vision of life and the world.

The universally recognized six Darśanas of Indian philosophy are:

1. The Nyāya of Gautama
2. The Vaiśeṣika of Kanada
3. The Sāṅkya of Kapila
4. The Yoga of Patañjali
5. The Pūrva Mīmāmsa of Jaimini
6. The Uttara – Mīmāmsa of Bādarāyaṇa which is also known as Vedānta.

These six systems can be grouped into three pairs.

Nyāya – Vaiśeṣika,

Sāṅkya – Yoga and The Pūrva and Uttara Mīmāmsas.

These six views of philosophy are often called Astika (orthodox) Darśanas.

Prof. M. Hiriyanna, an authority in ancient Indian philosophy conveniently divides the history of ancient Indian thought into two periods– the Vedic period and the classical period. The end of the Vedic period is suggested to be about 500 BC. The post – Vedic period has been termed, the Age of the systems or Darśanas. Unfortunately we are deficient in details of exact chronology of the doctrines of the Darśanas. The only date that can be specifically mentioned is the death of Gautama Buddha, which

occurred in BC 487, so that can be taken as a definite land mark in the history of Indian thought.

The unique feature of Indian thought is that it is rich and varied. However, among its diversity in development it clearly exhibits two divergent currents – one that has firm roots in the Vedas and the other which seeks its nourishment in areas that are independent of the Vedas and the Upaniṣads. Although the Darśana schools of thought are ascribed to various individual teachers, actually they are the outcome of a long succession of thinkers. That is why the systems have grown with the passing of time.[1]

In ancient India, some centuries before the Christian Era writing had not become common for religious purposes. Hence knowledge acquired had to be saved through memory. The sūtras or aphorisms in which knowledge was induced was so precise and metaphorical, so that explanation or commentaries were essential for their comprehension. Originally the sūtras were handed down verbally, directly by word of mouth from teacher to student. They were transformed to writing with explanations much later. Such writings were known as bhāṣyas or commentaries. These sūtras were produced in India during the period from AD 200 to 500.[2]

The Pramāṇa signifies tradition that is systematized. Mīmāmsas system aims at the interpretation of the Vedas.

2.2 What is Darśana

A common feature of Indian philosophical thoughts is the search for the central meaning of existence. The ancient Indian sages did not stop with the aim of discovering truth, but endeavoured to realize it in his own experience. The search for Reality was extended as a difficult effort to attain liberation or mokṣa . That is why Max Muller wrote: Philosophy in India is not for the sake of knowledge, but for the highest purpose that man can strive after in this life.[3] primarily the philosophic endeavour was to find a remedy for the pain and sufferings of life. For instance the founders of philosophic schools were called “Theerthamkarās” which literally means those who help others to cross the troubled waters of worldly life. Even doctrines such as Nyāya – Vaiśeṣika or Viśiṣtādvaida which do not believe in Jivanmukti (mokṣa) recognize a state of enlightenment or spiritual bliss.

During the post-vedic period of the Upaniṣads it was the potent spiritual belief that “when all the desires of the heart are gone, man becomes immortal and reaches Brahman here.”[4] The Vedic or Āṣtika tradition and the Non-Vedic or Naṣtika traditions of Indian Philosophy have acted and reached upon each other giving rise to two divergent schools of thought called the Āstika and the Nāsthika.

In the course of centuries, Buddhism attained supremacy over other Darśanas for a long time, but after the advent of Śankara the Vedānta Philosophy had its final victory over other systems. Katha Upaniṣad states that the self cannot be attained by instruction or by intellectual power or even through learning.

□□□□□□□ □□□□□□ □□□□ □ □□□□ □ □□□□ □□□□

Muṇdaka Upaniṣad also contains the same perception that mere intellectual learning is not enlightening.

Bṛhadāraṇyaka Upaniṣads despises intellectual enquiry to assess the ultimate reality.

□□□□ □□□□□□ □□□□□□□ □□□□ □□□□□□□□□□□□□□□

Hence all Darśanas emphasize the notion that intellectual study and reasoning must be accompanied by moral excellence and ethical virtues. Moral discipline is essential for spiritual enlightenment. Hence sādhana is insisted in all systems. Katha Upaniṣads points out that not even he who is tranquil, who is concentrated in mind and composed in meditation can reach the self through right knowledge.

□□□□□□□ □□□□□□□□□□□□□□□□□□□□□□□□

नाशान्तमानसो वापि प्रज्ञानेनैनमाप्नुयात् □

Thus the importance of ethical life is insisted on in all the Indian Philosophical systems.

2.3 The Origin and Development of Darśanas

In India the word Darśana is used to mean Philosophy in general. The word is etymologically related to the Dhātu Drs. Though the root has the meaning 'to see' or 'vision', the word Darśana cannot be limited to that sense alone. It can be explained to signify the enquiry or perception regarding the inner essence of some object or phenomenon.

In fact, it can be said that the first 'Darśana' originated when man began to think and observe his surroundings. The power of perception need not be the outcome of mere curiosity alone. The age of the Darśanas in India is 6th century B.C. During that period in various countries of the world many Philosophers lived and their thoughts had enriched the people of their countries. For instances, Thalus (BC 624 – 547), Anaxemander (BC 585 – 525) in Greece, and Confucius in China (BC 551 – 479) lived in that period. In India Gautama Buddha and Mahāvīra also were the products of the age.

Sree Buddha's assessment of life was based on his own experiences. We can see its reflections in his Darśana. He felt that the

dogmas of the scriptures had failed to provide him a permanent solution for the perennial problems of human misery.

The Aryans who settled in India during the Pre-Vedic period had a primitive Indo – European religious faith. The old Sanskrit words 'deva' (from 'div' or to shine) means God. It is similar in meaning to Latin deus. The Vedic Gods were personifications of natural forces and were considered the guardians of the cosmic order. Rudolph Roth, the famous Vedic scholar of contemporary times finds in Vedic hymns "a positive moral value."[5]

The Gods worshipped were all originated from the power of nature and sacrifices were performed to please them. The Mantras of the Ṛgveda and the Brāhmaṇas were all powerful incantations of the poet and priests of the age. The early Vedic religion was Monotheistic or having disbeliefs in the plurality of Gods. They heightened the importance of one God over the other, so that Max Muller calls it a form of henotheism.

The origin of the Upaniṣads occurred towards the end of the Vedic period.[6] The essence of Upaniṣadic Philosophy were contained in short aphoristic statements like, 'Tat tvam asi' which means "That thou art".[7] Because they stand at the end of the Vedas, the Upaniṣads are also called Vedānta.

From the age of the Vedas and the Upaniṣads Indian Philosophy had to travel a long way to reach the beginning of the Darśanas. There was great diversity of doctrines and systems of thought during this period. There were signs of departure from the path of the teaching of the Upaniṣads and both orthodox as well as heterodox schools of thought developed.

2.4 Age of the Darśanas

A valuable source of information on the orthodox or Aṣthika doctrines of the post vedic period is the Mahabharata, the Upaniṣads and the srouta – sūtras of the Brahmanas. The Dharma Sūtras tell us about the customary laws and moral codes of medieval India. The epic Mahābhātata, which includes the most sacred book of Hinduism, the Bhāgavat Gīta is a store house of vedic doctrines. It can be seen that the epic was not the creation of a single author, but the result of the growth of many generations of sages and their disciples.

The diverse views and dogmas of the age of the Darśanas were not all produced in Sanskrit language. Many teachings of the seers were written or preserved in Pali and Prakṛt languages which were more popular among the common people.[8] Upaniṣads considered disciplined life and pursuit of knowledge as devices for durita – kṣaya or purifying the mind, which could bring salvation.

There were also heretical or atheistic views which expressed antagonism to the vedic dogmas. Buddhists and Jaina works of the period contain references to many Philosophical schools that follow paths different from that of the vedas and the Upaniṣads. Yaṣka, the famous author of Nirukta (about 500BC) mentions the names of some scholars who criticised the Vedas.

During the Age of the systems in Indian Philosophy, Logic emerged as an essential characteristic of it. One of the contributing factors must have been the development of heterodox doctrines like Buddhism and Jainism. The word Pramāṇa means the tool for arriving at valid knowledge or prama. The object to be known is called prameya and the one who tries to know is termed pramata. The nature and scope of Pramāṇas are complex due to the great variety of views available on the subject.

In the strictest sense it can be seen that there are three Pramāṇas– Pratyakṣa or perception, anumāna or inference, and śabda or verbal testimony.[9] But their number increases from Darśana to Darśana till it reaches six in the vedānta.

The words Pramāṇa and Prameya are found in the Maitri Upanisads.[10] In the writings of Greek travellers to India like Megasthenes, the term Pramāṇas is used for philosopher.[11] Both the orthodox as well as the Heterodox schools of Indian Philosophy have made use of the

Pramāṇas to interpret their traditional beliefs and dogmas. In fact the aim of the Mīmāmsa Darśanas was the systematic interpretation of the teaching of the Vedas, based on the Pramāṇas.

2.5 Aspects of Indian Philosophy

A darśana is naturally the result gathered by means of the Pramāṇas. The literal meaning of darśana is vision or sight. In fact the Indian thinkers were not satisfied with knowledge arrived at through a mediator. What they aspired for was a direct vision of the ultimate truth. It is this feature of Indian mysticism that distinguishes it from the western method of enquiry into the unknown.

When the western mind uses yukti or reason the Indian seer uses anumāna or inference as a means to know. The darśana is only 'a philosophic opinion'.[12] Generally accepted view is that there are six well developed schools of Āstika Darśanas – The Nyāya of Gautama, the Vaiśeṣika of Kanada, the Sāṅkhya of Kapila, the Yoga of Patañjali the Pūrva Mīmāmsa of Jaimini and the Uttara Mīmāmsa or vedānta of Bādarāyaṇa. These six systems can be grouped into three which are pairs– Nyāya - Vaiśeṣika, Sāṅkhya – Yoga, and the two Mīmāmsas, because they share the metaphysical features of each other.

The later history of Indian Philosophy is guided by the thought channels of these six philosophical systems and also to view points of Buddhism, Jainism and also the nāstika Darśanas of rationalists like the Cārvākas.

The Darśanas of Indian Philosophy are often called systems because their thought are arranged into a logical whole. Their out look is scientific in the modern sense and the methods are rational, logical and systematic, unlike those of many other religious dogmas of the world.

The basic source of knowledge about the darśana systems is the literature of the sūtras. Since in the centuries before the Christian Era written books had not been common for religious teaching, the sūtras were composed for memorizing. They are aphorisms, which are unintelligible without explanation. The sūtras are handed down from the teacher to the pupil through the spoken word. Their bhāṣyas or commentaries were written in the Sanskrit language. These sūtras are believed to be composed during the period from 200 to 500 B C. Thus the origin of the Darśanas can be traced to these sūtras.

2.6 Eastern and Western Perspectives of Philosophy

The most unique feature of Indian Philosophy is that it is intensely spiritual and an attempt for the practical realization of truth. The term used

in Sanskrit is ‘darśana’ or vision. Its aim is direct intuitive vision of Reality. The basic problems analyzed philosophically both in the East and the West is the same. However the methods of enquiry adopted are different. The systems of Indian Philosophy fall into different groups based on sources of knowledge or epistemology such as Empiricism, Rationalism and Authoritarianism.

Only the group of materialists in Indian Philosophy such as the followers of Cārvāka come under Empiricism. They deny the existence of God and the concepts of Karma and Rebirth. Those who believe only in what is directly perceived and inferred from what is perceived, come under the category of Rationalists. In India the group of Darśanas called the Nyāya – Vaiśeṣika, the Sāṅkhya – Yoga and Buddhist schools belong to this group. Perception and inference cannot explain all that occurs in the world. There are concepts such as super – human powers, God, Karma, rebirth etc. which are super sensuous experiences. The vision of mystics or revelations are included in Authoritarian category as they also accept other Pramāṇas. Three schools of Indian Philosophy such as Pūrva Mīmāmsa, Uttara Mīmāmsa or Vedānta and Jainism and considered Authoritarian schools.

In Western philosophy, while specialization or classification and analysis are accepted as the convenient tools for the enhancement of

knowledge, the basic principle of the Indian Philosophical enquiry is the synthesis of gathered fragments of knowledge as a means of reaching ultimate reality.

Thus in contrast, we find empiricism, skepticism, criticism and rationalism as the general features of Western Philosophy. Empiricism holds that the mind of man at the time of birth is like a blank sheet of paper (Tabula Rusa) which is later filled up by experiences gathered through feelings, thoughts and sensations. Schools of skepticism in the West believe that human beings cannot have any understanding of realities other than our experiences and hence our knowledge is certain or independent. Criticism is also taken up as a philosophical method so that origin and limit of knowledge are challenged. Rationalism, another favoured school of Western criticism advocates reason and accepts only matters that are interpreted by and acceptable to reason.

Philosophers like Bacon, Hobbes, Locke, Hume and Mill were advocates of the school of Empirical philosophy. They were also sceptic because they were doubtful of realities outside their own feelings and experiences. Kant followed the method of critical evaluation in his philosophical investigations. Hence it can be considered as a form of rationalism. In contrast with Kant, Hegal accepted the method of philosophical dialecticism. Positive facts are arrived at through thinking

called Thesis. When contrary facts are known, they are arranged as Anti - Thesis. At last they are synthesized to form comprehensive knowledge called synthesis.

The 20th century saw in the Western World Positivism which uses the methods of linguistic and psychological analysis for the understanding of Reality. In short, the layman feels that the western mind tries to see and study the tree very minutely, but it misses the magnanimity of the forest.

2.7 Āṣtika and Nāṣtika Darśanas

The Darśana of Cārvaka is the earliest school of materialism in India. Max Muller in his Six systems of Indian Philosophy shares the view that Cārvāka must be the disciple to whom some previous sage had given the darśana. It is also known as Lokayata darśana. Sri Harṣa, in his Naiṣadhiya – carita ridicules the theory and its practice. Śankara in his Bhāśya attacks it mercilessly. We have only attacks and negative comments aimed at this darśana. For example in Sarva – darśana samgraha there is a brief reference to it. Probably the Cārvākas attracted severe criticism because they denounced Vedic authority and the supremacy of the priests. However, the mere existence of such a school of thought built on reason and intellect proves that there was a good deal of freedom of thought in India even in those days. We have to admire the tolerance spirit in India considering the fact that heretics were burnt alive

in Europe even in the 16th century and hundreds of old women were burnt alive as witches in the 17th century America. The Cārvāka school accepted only the doctrine of pratyakṣa or direct perception. Other Pramāṇas like the anumāna (inference) were rejected as untrue or unreliable, as it was only guess– work. The Cārvāka philosophy denies the existence of Ātma or the soul. In short this ancient Indian materialistic view looks at the mind or consciousness as a function of the body, which ceases when the body disintegrates.

It is only natural that the denial of the ātma, the corner stone of Indian spirituality attracted severe attacks from all branches of Indian theistic philosophy. Śankara, using his sharp intelligence and power of argument could prove that consciousness is not a property of the physical body, but something which is independent of it.[13]

The Darśana of Cārvāka not only denies the existence of all super natural elements, but also repudiates the dogmas of moral goodness preached by the Āṣtika Darśanas. It does not recognize the concept of God or conscience as a controlling factor. It denies man's aspiration for a higher life and aims at pleasure as the ultimate aim of human life.

2.8 Unity in diversity as the spirit of Āṣtika Darśana in India

An indepth study and analysis of all the Āṣtika Darśanas of India leads us to the conclusion that the spirit of unity is the guiding principle behind all the Indian Darsanas. Though each and every philosophical perspective of the Indian seer points out any one or other way to seek and attain wisdom, ultimately all paths lead us to the existence of the mystic centre of power known by different names. Christian theologians of India in the 20th century, for instance have pointed out that the concept of pluralistic Inclusion is applicable to the faith experience of all people belonging to diverse religions.[14]

The pramanas of Indian Darśanas are relevant in the context of the religious diversity of India. Changes and developments are taking place in the dogmatic vision of theologians in the light of the Darśanās of India. For instance, in India there is a view that vedic sacrifices, especially those of prajapathi point to the atoning sacrifice of Christ.[15] The principle that one belief cannot be judged by the criteria of another one, has become the corner stone of the Darśana philosophy of India. As W.C. Smith observes, the world has given equal importance and equality to all faith experiences of the world. The result of man's observations and experiences of the world emerge out as kin expression of faith. In fact, it is called the religion of human kind, or pluralistic Inclusivism by W.C. Smith.[16]

2.9 The Outstanding Works of the Āstika Darśanās

The first and foremost of the Āstika Darśanās of India are perhaps the Nyāya and Vaiśeṣika, which are often taken together for studies and discussion, due to their sharing of concepts and dogmas. The most out standing basic treatise of the school is Vaiśeṣika sūtra of sage Kanada. I is a scholarly text written in 10 chapters, each of which is divided into two sections, dealing with problems of philosophical nature. The earliest of its commentaries composed by a scholar named Prasasthapāda is known as Bhāṣya. Probably this commentary was written in the 5th century A.D. Prasasthapāda's Bhāṣya not only explains Vaiśeṣika sutra, but also extends and develops the arguments. For instance we find the formulations of the theory of God as creator of the universe in it is a part of the Vaiśeṣika doctrine during the later years among which those of Udayana and Sridhara are well – known. These writers were contemporaries who lived in the 10th century AD. Udayana's work is called Kusumañjali and Sridhara's Kandali are well known textbooks of Vaiśeṣika.

The Nyāya-sūtra of Rishi Gautama is in five chapters, each of which contains two sections. A Bhāṣya was written on it by Vatsyana in the 4th century AD. As its doctrines were against the conviction of Buddhism, the famous Buddhist philosopher Dinnaga (Dig Naga) criticised

it. But Uddyotakara in his Vārtika defended it, under the patronage of king Harṣa Vardhana in the 7th century AD.

It is well known that there are references to Sāṅkhya – Yoga Darśanas in the Upaniṣads. Hence it can be assumed that this system is as old as the Age of the Upaniṣads. Vacaspati (AD 841) wrote authoritarian works on all the Darśanas. However, his Tātparya – ṭika comments on the dogmatic framework of the Nyāya darśana. In his work Tātparya– tika Parisudhi Udayana comments on it. Jayanta Bhaṭṭa discusses Gautamas Nyāya in his Nyāya Manjari. Gangesa (AD 1200), in his Tattva – Cintāmani proposes a new outlook on the Nyāya philosophy. Raghunatha Siromaṇi's commentary on gangeśa's work is called Dīdhiti. This work has attracted the attention of scholars and philosophers so deeply that Gadadhara who claimed "all knowledge as his province, like Francis Becon of England, considered it as a gem of Indian Philosophy.

2.10 Sanskrit Literature and Āstika Darsanas

The Āstika Darśanas of India rely on the authority of the Indian scriptures like the vedas, the Upaniṣads and the sacred books like the Bhagavad Gita. There are four vedas, each of which contains three divisions such as the Samhitas, the brahmaṇas and the Āraṇyakas. The Upaniṣads which are about 108 in number are parts of the Āraṇyakas or treatises composed by the sages of ancient India who lived in their forest

hermitages. All such scriptures and sacred texts which are written in classical Sanskrit are considered the basic treatises behind the Astika Darśanas, The common reader of the contemporary times, naturally, finds it difficult to comprehended the inner connotations of the texts, which also happens to be one of the difficulties faced by the non scholars of Sanskrit.

2.11. The Theoretical Perspective of Samkhya Darśana

It can be seen clearly that in its early form Sāṅkhya darśana did not favour the Āstika view point. In its neglect of the omnipotent theory of the paramatma and its affiliation with the theory of relation between avidya and ātma it reminds us of the similarity with Buddhism. Later thinkers found it difficult to explain the nature of Puruṣa and Prakṛti. Vacaspthi holds the view that the omniscient paramatma controls Prakṛti and puruṣa. Vijnana Bhiksu repeatedly tries to corelate Sāṅkhya darśana with Vedānta perspective.

In Sāṅkhya darśana there are some features of the theory of evolution. For instance, it believes in the indestructibility of matter. There is also the scientific out look that nothing can be created out of nothing. Conversely what ever is there will always be there. There is no new creation or ārambha. Since the object is already there, it can not be made again. Hence the concept of the beginning is only a myth. Like that, there is no end, or destruction, but only a change of form.

The process of evolution is cyclic or recurrent periodically or the continuous process of evolution and dissolution.

The Sāṅkhya darśana does not elaborately discuss the methods of achieving mokṣa or salvation, while the Yoga darśana's major concern is spiritual bliss by its practice. Sāṅkhya's basic text, Kārika suggests meditation on the distinct nature of Prakṛti and Puruṣa. Detachment (Vairāgya) and Yoga (meditation) are discussed as methods to reach mokṣa in both systems.

The concept of Prakṛti and Puruṣa is made clear in the Bhagavad Gīta. The word Puruṣa means 'Man' or 'Person'. The idea of the puruṣa dates back to the age of the Upaniṣads or even before that. It is found in the Ṛgveda X. 90 (Puruṣa sūkta). In the hymn it appears as universal and all pervading. The word occurs repeatedly in the Upaniṣads.[17]

Puruṣa is primal and cosmic. It is one with atman, one with Brāhman, one with all.

Puruṣa is immanent in every separate being the cosmic and individual puruṣa is one.

Sāṅkhya darśana is dualistic. It uses the term puruṣa to mean the conscious, inactive aspect in every living being. The unconscious or action Prakṛti contains a multitude of puruṣa or individual ātma.

The Sāṅkhya school of philosophy was highly influential in India during the ancient times as there are references about it even in the Mahābhārata and the Upaniṣads. Ṛsi Kapila, who is believed to be the founder of this school is the author of Sāṅkhya sutra, which has a commentary called Sāṅkhya Pravacana Bhāṣya written in the 16th century AD by Vijñana Bhikṣu. The Darśanas of Sāṅkhya and Yoga are related to each other because both derive sustenance from the Upaniṣads. The Sāṅkhya system derives its theoretical base from the primitive Sāṅkhya Yoga which believes in a supreme God to whom nature and individuals are subordinated.

Sāṅkhya darśana follows a dualistic outlook of plurality of selves such as Prakṛti and Puruṣa or nature and spirit. Prakṛti accounts for whatever is physical like matter and force. The whole world evolved out of it. This doctrines of the origin of the universe is termed pariṇāma vāda. Both space and Time are considered part of Prakṛti. The essential characteristics of the physical universe are taken as made up of three factors such as sattva, rajas and tamas. There aspects are called Guṇas. Later the Sāṅkhya darśana enlarged the guṇas to numerous numbers and attributed the infinity and diversity of Prakṛti to the indefinite number of the guṇas.

2.11.1 Puruṣa and Prakṛti

Puruṣa is without change, eternal and omnipresent. It is the power of sensation or consciousness. While Prakṛti is active puruṣa is passive. It represents the receptive side of the self.

Sāṅkhya theory describes a primordial matter called Prakṛti from which the totality of the material reality, originates. The mind is the part of the Prakṛti. Beside the Prakṛti or matter there exists puruṣa (spirit), which are many in number. There is the existence of an infinite number of puruṣas or individual souls. Prakṛti is active, but pruruṣa is inactive. Prakṛti is without consciousness, puruṣa is conscious. Prakṛti constantly undergoes change, puruṣa is static. Prakṛti is the object of all knowledge, puruṣa is the subject of knowledge.

Puruṣa is the soul which is incarnate in individual beings. It experiences the material world by means of mind and its functions. The individual, normally identifies with the embodied soul's mental processes. It thinks that it is the experiences which manifest in many ways and mistakes that it is the process. It is a kind of false identification because the soul and the experiences are different. Actually the individual soul is in bondage with the experiences due to ignorance. The result is endless suffering and the soul is subjected to reincarnations. To free itself from suffering and reincarnations the puruṣa must stop identifying it self with

the mental processes, isolate itself from matter is manifestations, or liberate the soul from the functions of the mind, which is the aim of mokṣa or kaivalya.

2.12 Yoga Darśanas

The Yoga sutra of Ṛsi Patañjali is considered the basic text of the philosophical system of Yoga. In addition to it there are other treatises that deal with the Yoga system such as Yoga – Bhāṣya of Vyāsa, the Tatta vaisaradi of Vācaspati Miśra, the Gorakṣa śātaka of yoga Gorakśanatha, Hathayogapradīpika of Svatmarama Yogindra (15th C) Gheranda Samhita of Yogi Gheranda and Śiva Samhita.

Scholars have pointed out that like Buddhism as well as Yoga darśana rejects the orthodox brahmanical tradition of India.[18]

Traditionally it is believed that Sage Patañjali, who lived in the 4th C BC is the author of the Yogasūtra, but there are also other views. Patañjali's Yogasūtra consists of four books each dealing with Samādhi (concentration) Sādhana (method) siddhis (power like that of magic) and Kaivalya (liberation of the soul).

The essential requirements of the Yogic method are tapas (ascetic discipline), vairāgya (destruction of desire), and prāṇayāma (breath control). The word Yoga is derived from the root yuj which means 'to yoke'

or to unite'. Yoga is the act of yoking, or mastering or subduring. The yoga sutra defines yoga as the process of mental restraint. Max Muller points out that actually Yoga does not unite, but disunites or separates the spirit from matter or Puruṣa from Prakṛti helping it to reach kaivalya or liberation. Yoga unites the individual soul with God or Universal soul.

The main difference between Sāṅkhya and Yoga is that while Sāṅkhya establishes that it is impossible to assert the existence of God, the Yoga darśana firmly believes in accompling the individual soul's union with God. In his Yoga sutra Patañjali defines Yoga as restraint (nirodha) of the modifications of mind." (i.2) In Bhagavad Gīta the word Yoga is used in the 'sense of control' or 'method of control'. The Sāṅkhya and the Yoga schools of thought developed much later than the time of Gīta. Many ascetics must have practised the methods of Yoga posture and breath control to reach the trance like state described in the Gīta.

In Bhagavad Gīta 'Yoga stands for methods of control. For instance Karma Yoga means methods of control for right work , jnana yoga stands for right knowledge and bhakti yoga signifies right devotion.[19]

2.13 Nyāya Darśana

The Nyāya school of Indian philosophy is "predominantly intellectualistic and analytical.[20] Some times terms like hetu-vidya or

'science of causes' are used to refer to it. The basic text of Nyāya darśana is Gautama's Nyāya – sutra which is explained by Vātsyāyana (400 AD) in his Bhāṣya. According to the Bhāṣya "multifarious things to experience are divisible into certain classes called dṛvya (substance), which are nine in number. They are 1. earth (pṛthvi) 2. water (ap) 3) fire (tejas) 4. air (vāyu) 5. akāśa (6) time (kāla) 7. space (dik) 8. the self (ātman) and 9. manas. These substances or dravyās explain the whole universe with their properties and relations. Both the Nyāya and Vaiśeṣika Darśanas are not materialistic like Cārvaka. So it is believed that the dravyās merely constitute the frame work of the universe.

Both Nyāya and Vaiśeṣika Darśanas share many dogmas so that they had almost amalgamated into a common point of view by their followers. The difference between the two Darśanas is that while Nyāya sutra analyses the world in an epistemological (critical of knowledge) point of view the Vaiśeṣika sūtra looks at it from the ontological (theoretical) stand point. The Nyāya follows the argumentative method, but it is not merely logical, but also analyses the theory behind the art of argument.

The Nyāya sara of Bhāṣavajña examines the basic Nyāya concept of Pramāṇa and Prameya, and classifies the point of view under the four categories or perception (pratkṣa) inference (anumāna) verbal testimony

(śabda) and comparison (upamāna). All these are grouped under Pramāṇa.

Cognition or understanding is divided into two – direct perception and mediate knowledge. The former is called Pratyakṣa and the latter is known as parokṣa. There are two kinds of pratyakṣa – laukika or ordinary and alukika or transcendental perception. Yogic perception comes under alaukika perception.

Unlike the Vaiśeṣika, the Nyāya darśana accepts śabda (sound) as an independent Pramāṇa. It is treated as reliable source of knowledge.[21]

Inference (Anumana). It can be inferred that there is the presence of fire, if there is smoke, because it is not common to see smoke without fire. Gautama classifies anumāna into three pūrvavat śeṣavat and samānya dṛsta.

Pūrvavat is reasoning based on resemblance of something seen in the past. Śeṣavat refers to guess something based on results.

eg: a fallen tree can suggest the possibility of wind etc. Samanyata to dṛsta is suggestion of an agent or instrument (karaṇa) for an activity. For example a sword cannot act without a person to swing it with his hands.

2.14 Vaiśeṣika Darśana

The Nyāya darśana believes in seven gunas of mater. In addition to it Vaiśeṣika darśana believes in two viśesa guṇas such as dharma and adharma. These two guṇas stand for puṇya (merit) and papa (demerit). The schools such as Mīmāmsa and Vedānta rely on the authority of the veda to distinguish between puṇya and papar. But the Vaiśeṣika school accepts the view that dharma and adharma are directly by the individual. Continuous distinguish discipline and development of spiritual power by yoga are needed for that. Later, after the amalgation of the two systems into one Vaiśeṣika also began to accept the authority of the vedas. [22]

We can see the influence of the Bhagavat Gīta in the writings of Praśastapāda. In Yoga darśana it is known as the practice of yama and Niyama.

Both Nyāya and Vaiśeṣika darśana are pessimistic, as the doctrines say that both pain and pleasure are real. Pleasure in life is brief and uncertain, but pain is more common and powerful. Hence the deal of life is to escape from it. The Darśanas like Buddhism, advocates the removal of pain more than the attainment of pleasure. [23]

It teaches that evil can be avoided, and pain can be removed. The state of mokṣa is one in which the self is able to caste off all its nine qualities.

Both Nyāya and Vaiśeṣika share many view points with Buddhism. The Buddhist philosophy says that pleasure and pain cannot be avoided unless we cast away the belief in the self. The Nyāya and Vaiśeṣika also do not believe in the self, but accept that the ultimate aim of life can be achieved, only when we realise that the self is beyond our experience.

The self is unable to obtain anything for it from life. The self reaches its state of release when it learns their knowledge. Thus the aim of life is to achieve the right knowledge. The practice of Yoga leads the individual to secure their knowledge. Buddhism calls it enlightenment or the ultimate knowledge. Jivan – mukti or mokṣa is not recognized as in other Darśanas. One who is enlightened need not secure mokṣa or Jīvan – mukti. It is only a state which leads to it. Man's effort should be directed towards the goal of enlightenment which can be achieved by purifying his desires avoiding selfishness, enduring pain and abolishing hatred. Both Nyāya and Vaiśeṣika are Aṣthika darśana because they believe in the conception of God, which is termed as "the highest soul" or "Paramātma". It is the embodiment of knowledge, without pain or desire, or will, even

active, and completely unselfish. Man's endeavor should be to achieve such a state of existence.

2.15 Pūrva Mīmāmsa

The earliest sacred books of India are the four vedas and they have had much influence on the Indian mind, especially on the formation of the Āstika darśanas. The philosophical schools which developed directly from the vedic culture are the Mīmāmsa darśanas. In the later vedic period, the vedic tradition divided into two – the ritualistic group and the speculative group. (Karma and Jñāna). While the former group emphasized vedic rites and rituals the latter developed an elaborate philosophy out of the vedic interpretations. Since both have their roots in the vedas, they are called Mīmāmsa Darśanas. The earlier of the groups was ritualistic and it was called Pūrva Mīmāmsa or Karma Mīmāmsa and the later vedic darśana came to be called Uttara Mīmāmsa is Jñāna Mīmāmsa, and was popularly known as Vedānta.

The theories of both Mīmāmsas are built on the aspects of the vedas, and the Upaniṣads. In Europe, there was a similar situation during the Middle Ages when philosophers based their arguments on the authority of the Bible. In the Āstika darśanas of India, after the importance of vedas and the Upaniṣads there are scriptures known as the sūtras.

Etymologically the word sūtra means 'thread'. In fact the sūtras were intellectual threads by means of which the main dogmas of the sacred texts were knitted together in the minds of the disciples by the Ācharyas. A sūtra contained a number of aphorisms or wise observations packed with knowledge. For instance, the Brahma sūtra (Vedānta – sūtra) of Bādarāyaṇa sums up systematically the philosophy of the different vedas and the Upaniṣads. In addition to the sūtras there are numerous bhaṣyas or commentaries which successfully interpreted the sūtras according to the view points of different Ācharyas like Sankara, Rāmānuja, Madhva, Vallabha, Nimbaraka, Baladeva and others.

As stated the basis of Pūrva Mīmāmsa is the ritualistic side of the vedas. It supports ritualism in two ways, viz., 1) by interpreting the meaning of the rituals and 2) by justifying the beliefs on which ritualism depended. The basis of the belief in rituals is that the human souls. Survives after death and enjoys the fruits of the performed rituals. The foundation of Pūrva Mīmāmsa was laid by sage Jaimini in his Mīmāmsa – sūtras. Other treatises dealing with Mīmāmsa are sabarasvami's commentary called Sābara bhaṣyam of Mīmāmsa – sūtra. There are two very important interpretations of this treatise one by Kumarila Bhatta, and another by Prabhakara Guru. The disciples and followers of these two Ācharyas formed separate schools, named after their masters.

Mīmāmsa means the science of solving a problem by reflection and critical examination. Hence, the most significant branch of Mīmāmsa is its theory of knowledge or Pramāṇas. The dogmas of Mīmāmsas discuss elaborately what is knowledge, and how it becomes valid, as distinct from what is not valid.

Like the other systems of darśanas admits two kinds of knowledge– immediate and mediate. The conditions of valid knowledge are that it should be new information, should not be contradicted by any other knowledge, and must not be the result of a defective sense organ. Immediate knowledge arises from an object which exists (sat). When it relates to a sense (either one of the five senses or the internal sense organ called manas), an immediate knowledge arises. This knowledge is called nirvikalpa - pratyakṣa – jñāna. At a later stage if the meaning of the object is interpreted in the light of our previous knowledge, it is called Savikalpa pratyakṣa jñāna.

The Mīmāmsa believes that use of the vedas is to direct and control the rituals. [24] Thus, in a sense the Mīmāmsa school is like the western philosophical school of pragmatism, which seeks knowledge for its use and value.

The Mīmāmsa philosophers do not believe in God as creator or destroyer of the world, but they believe that the value of the vedas are

eternal or ever lasting like the world. [25] According to the principles of Pūrva Mīmāmsa there are six pramāṇas such as pratyakṣa (Perception) Anumāna (inference) Upamāna (comparison), Śabda (testimony) Arthapatti (postulation) and Anupalabhi (non-perception). However the different schools of the Mīmāmsa darśana like those of the Bhattas and the Prabhakara hold different views regarding the major pramāṇas.

2.16 **Uthara** Mīmāmsa (Vedānta)

The Upaniṣads are considered the culmination of the philosophy of the vedas. So they are called the vedānta or end of the vedas. The number of Upaniṣads vary from 10 to 108, and different schools of thought have developed based on their interpretations. Bādarāyaṇa's Brahma – sūtra (also called Vedānta – sūtra) understook the task of systematizing the essence of the Upaniṣads. The Ācharyas who wrote commentaries or bhaṣya on the sūtras and the śruthis established schools of vedānta. Among them the most important were the schools of Advaita Vedānta established by Saṅkara, and the Viśiṣtadvaita of Ramānuja. [26] Other Āchāryas like Mādhva, Vallabha, Nimbāraka and others also established their own schools of vedānta.

In the Upaniṣads were find the earliest attempt of philosophical speculation on the world, human life, life after death etc. The perennial problems of self, about God and the world are examined and discussed.

Filled with amazement the famous German Philosopher Schopenhauer exclaimed that there was no study so beneficial and so elevating as that of the Upaniṣads. [27] The Upaniṣads believes that there is some reality by knowing which immortality can be attained. Vedānta calls it Brahma, or Ātma.

In the Brahma – sūtra Bādarāyaṇa's attempted to ascertain systematically the real knowledge revealed in the multiple texts of the Upaniṣads. In his commentary or Bhāṣya of the Brahma – sūtra. Saṅkara under took the difficult task of refuting the other views on the Brahma based on reasoning and the pramāṇa of testimony of the scriptures. He also rejected the Samkhya doctrine that the prakṛti (unconscious primal matter) gives rise to the world similarly he dismissed the Vaiśeṣika theory that the world is caused by the combination of atoms. Moreover, consciousness arises only if souls are associated with bodies, and organs of knowledge, and hence atoms cannot have any consciousness. The Upaniṣads advise that man has no existence without God. This view has been accepted by the Vedānta philosophy of both Saṅkara and Rāmāyaṇa. However, their interpretation on self's dependence on God are different.

Saṅkara's theory of creation is called vivartavāda which is different from the Sankhya theory of creation, whereas Rāmāyaṇa's theory of

Pariṇāma vada comes very near to it. Saṅkara interprets that creation, according to the Upaniṣads is evolution of the world out of Brahma through its power of maya which is dependent on it. Ramānuja, on the other hand thinks that the mystery of creation is beyond human intellect, and hence we have to depend on the words given in the scriptures. "The mystery of creation cannot be solved by human reasoning." [28]

Saṅkara's theory of Advaita has a strong rational foundation. His followers have taken the arguments to great intellectual heights which are unreachable in the west. For instance, the logical skill and dialectical subtlety of Saṅkara is seen in his disciples also. The school of Adaita established the conception of an infinite, indeterminate (nirviśeṣa) existence as the essence or material cause of the world, which is termed the Absolute or Brahma. Though it exists in all that exists, and in all human experiences its forms are varied.

According to Saṅkara consciousness of the self is limited by the body, because it takes place through the instruments of the senses. The empirical or finite knowledge is of two kinds immediate and mediate. Immediate knowledge of external objects arises, when through the senses the antaḥ karana flows out. In addition to this immediate knowledge (pratyakṣa), the Advaita philosophy admits five other kinds of mediate knowledge, namely, inference (anumāna) testing (Śabda), comparison

(upamāna), postulation (anthapatti) and non-cognition (anupalabdhi). The Advaita generally agrees with the Mīmāmsa school regarding these sources of knowledge. However, the Bhaṭṭa school has difference in their views.

2.17 The significance of the Darśanas

The six systems of ancient Indian philosophical perspective can be looked upon as not fighting with each other, but as constituting a whole. Each system supplements the other and all of them together constitute the fulfillment of Vedānta in India. These systems have a spiritual force which has influenced the thought of the world. Greatest minds of the west like Schopen hauers, Nietzche, Emerson, Thoreau, Whitman, and Huxley have been captivated by the brilliance of Indian philosophy.

Romain Rolland once declared "the only religion that can have any hold on the intellectual people is the rationalistic religion of Advaita Vedānta. The system of Vedānta is two fold. Absolutistic and Theistic. The former is represented by Śankara's, Advaita and the latter is represented by Ramanuja's Viśiṣtadvaita. Both have their systems built on the authority of the vedas, and the Upaniṣads, the Bhagavat – Gīta and the Vedānta – Sūtras. The basic text for the Vedānta is the Upaniṣads. The Upaniṣads belong to the category of the śruti (Revelation), while the Gīta and the Vedānta – Sutra are considered smṛtis (human compositions).

The actual number of Upaniṣads is about 108, but some 12 have the interpretations made by Vedāntins. They are believed to have been composed in an age earlier than that of Gautama Buddha. It is said that Schopenhauer exclaimed after reacting the Upaniṣads.

"In the whole world there is no study... so beneficial and so elevating as that of the Upaniṣads." Max Muller, who translated the Upaniṣads described them as "the light of the morning, like the pure air of the mountains..."[29] The true tone of the Upaniṣads always fluctuates. There are passages of high seriousness, light hearted humour and humorous analogies.[30]

The two Vedāntas (Purva Mīmāmsa and Uttara Mīmāmsa) have condensed the philosophy of the Upaniṣads. Though both schools claim that they completely represent the philosophy of the Upaniṣads, it is difficult to say whether Śankara or Ramanuja has followed the philosophy in heart and spirit.

In his book "Religions of Ancient India". Louis Renon wrote: "Religion is not an independent phenomenon in India. It is a heritage and a tradition."[17] In the Vedas revelations are made by the Ṛsis as media for the revelation. They have the power of perception to produce the Mantras.[31] Ṛsayo mantra - drastarah" Tagore considers the Vedic Mantras

as the "poetic testament of a people's collective reaction to the wonder and awe of existence"

Each veda contains four sections called Mantras, Brāhmaṇas, Āraṇyakas and performance of Sacrifices as told in the form of prose passages in the Brāhmaṇas. The Āraṇyakas were composed in the quiet hermitages in forests. They form the link between the Brahmaṇas and the Upaniṣads. Both systems of Vedānta derive their doctrines from the texts of the Upaniṣads, the Bhagavat – Gīta and the Vedānta – sūtras. The etymological meaning of the word Upanishad is 'to sit closely devotedly. (Sad – Upa – ni), According to Śankara Upanishad is that which destroys ignorance and leads to Brahmajñana.

The three source books of the Vedānta philosophy are the Upaniṣads, Bhagavat – Gīta and the Vedānta – Sūtras unlike the Upanishad the Gīta speaks is no voice. It envisages a religion whose prime objective is the philosophy of action.

The Bhagavat – Gīta is one of the earliest Sanskrit books to be translated into English. Its first translation was in 1785. Through the centuries the philosophy of Karma – Yoga has proved to be a source of comfort for million through out the world. The authority of the Vedānta (Mīmāmsas) is derived from the Vedas, the Upaniṣads and the Vedānta – Sūtras. The Sūtras try to reconcile the apparent contradiction in the

Upaniṣads. According to Sankara the number of Sūtras is 535. Where as Madhava considers it as 564.

In the West Philosophy is considered as intellectual interpretation of Reality. Its tools are reason as well as perception. Dr. S. Radhakrishnan considers intellect as the characteristic of the Western systems of philosophy.[32]

The Indian Riṣhi says that mokṣa is attained by Jñana, The meaning is that Jñana or knowledge is realization or Saksatkara. Śankara is of the view of the Upaniṣad that human being is potentially a part of universal consciousness. Vedānta tries to win back or recover the integral consciousness that humans are

Since the Upaniṣads constitute the end of the Vedas they are also called Vedānta. The essence of the Vedas as well as the metaphysical doctrines is the spiritual visions of the sages and ṛṣis of ancient India. Though there are more than hundred Upaniṣads only 10 among them are considered most important. They are Īśavasya, Kenam, Kaṭha, Praśna, Muṇdaka, Māndukya, Taiṭṭirīya, Aitareya, Chāndogya and Bṛhadāraṇyaka. All these Upaniṣads were formed in the 6th century BC or before that.

2.18 Analysis of the Darśanas

Ancient Indian Philosophy believes that life is full of suffering. The aim of religion and philosophy is to get freedom from suffering. In India Philosophy is called darśana. Since philosophy is capable of providing a vision of reality, it becomes associated with the human problems of pain and suffering. Ancient Indian Philosophy considers suffering as the result of the ignorance about the nature of the real. Human suffering occurs due to the ignorance regarding the distinction between the real and the unreal.

Generally the lower limit of the Vedic period is accepted as 500 BC. The Post – Vedic period begins from 500 BC to the beginning of the Christian era. The Post-Vedic period itself is divided into two – the early Post – Vedic period and the Age of the systems.

As M. Hiriyanna Says "philosophy in India did not take its rise in wonders or curiosity as it seems to have done in the West, rather it originated under the pressure of a practical need arising from the presence of moral and physical evil in life."[33]

Two elements that are common to the Aṣthika Darśanas are - 1) the pursuit of mokṣa as the final aim of life and 2) the ascetic spirit of the discipline needed for its attainment. Thus it can be seen that the orthodox philosophy is not more intellectualism or mere moralism. Though

it includes both elements, both are transcended. The goals that are aimed at are jñana or illumination and Vairāgya or self – renunciation.

In the history of Indian Philosophy we often find two traditions acting and reacting upon each other, producing different schools of thought. At one point of time Buddhism was at the top, and it seemed that its prominence would be final. But later the Vedānta system had the final victory after the period of Bādaārayaṇa and Śankara. The Vedānta can therefore be regarded as representing Indian thought of the highest type. Kālidāsa, the greatest poet of classical India refers to Vedānta as 'owning the whole world while disowning oneself.[34]

2.19 Resume

The Darśanas of Indian Philosophy are the subjective impressions formed in the intuitive vision of the Ṛṣis and therefore fo not follow a common pattern of development. However they follow a similar views in the inquiry of the meaning and objectives of human life. Those darśanas that owe allegiance to the dogmas of the vedas and the Upaniṣads are termed Āstika darśanas, which are six in number, viz., Nyāya, Vaiśeṣikas, Sānthya, Yoga, Pūrva mīmāmsa and Uttara mīmāmsa or Vedānta darśanas such as cārvāka and those of Buddha and Jaina, which have no direct dependence on the vedas are generally called Nāstika.

Among the Āstika darśanas Nyāya and Vaiśeṣikas share many dogmas so that later they had almost become amalgamated into a single system of thoughts. Similarly as darśanas in their theoretical perspective the Yoga and Sānkhya systems have many views in common. Like that the mīmāmsa darśanas (the Pūrva and Uttara) have their basis on the scriptures of India like the vedas and the Upaniṣads. The Uttara mīmāmsa, which is called the vedānta particularly depend on the Brahma sūtra of Sage Bādarāyaṇa as its scriptural base. The main sources of the vedānta philosophy are the Upaniṣads. The Bhagavat Gīta and the Brahma – sūtra (Vedānta sūtra), and their commentaries of Sri. Samkara.

While in the west philosophy aims at the intellectual interpretation of Reality using the tools of reason and perception, the Indian Ṛṣis had endeavoured to attain mokṣa or deliverance through Jñāna or realization.

Notes and References

1. Sacred Books of the East vol. xxii, p. xiv.
2. Prof. Jacobi, Dates of Philosophical Sūtras Journal of the American Oriental Society, xxxi, 1911.
3. F. Max Muller. Six Systems of Indian Philosophy Collected Works, Vol. xix, p. 370.
4. Kaṭhopaniṣad. II. iii.14.

5. Rudolph Roth, Journal of the American Oriental Society, Vol. iii, pp. 331 – 47

6. P. Deussen, Philosophy of the Upaniṣads – trans. A.S.Geden, p. 20.

7. Chāndogya Upanishad, VI. viii. 7.

8. M. Hiriyanna, Outlines of Indian Philosophy, p. 88.

9. Ibid.

10. Maitri Upanisad. vi. 14.

11. Cambridge History of India. Vol. i. p. 421.

12. Sacred Books of the East, xxii, p. xiv.

13. Vedānta Sutra of Badarayana, III. iii. 54.

14. K.P. Aleaz, Theology of Religions, p.188.

15. Krishna Mohan Banerjee, Dialogues on Hindu Philosophy

16. K.P. Aleaz, Theology of Religions, p.188.

17. Bṛhadāraṇyaka Upaniṣads, i, 4.1. Muṇd. 1-2.11.

    Bṛhad. ii. 5. 1-15, Muṇd. ii. 1.10

    Kath. Up. iv -12. vi. 17. Svet. iii. ii. 18.

    Bṛh. v. 15. Muṇd. ii. 1.2.4. Svet. iii. 7.21, Maitri. vi.i.

18. Fernand, Tola and Caramen Dragonetti, The Yoga Sūtras of Patañjali. Motilal Banarsidass Publication, Delhi, 1995, p. x.

19. Douglas P.H.V. The Bhagavad – Gīta with English Translation and Commentary, Winsons Books, Delhi, 2004, p. 53.

20. Hiriyanna, M. Outlines of Indian Philosophy, p. 225.

21. Tarka Sangraha Dipika, p. 54.

22. Tarka Sangraha Dipika, p. 67.

23. Nyāya Sutra of Gautama. iv. ii. 46.

24. Sūtras of Jaimini, 1.2.1, 1.2.7.

25. Ibid., 6 – 8, chap. 1.

26. A Nagaraja Rao, The Schools of Vedānta. Bhāratīya Vidyā Bhavan, Bombay.

27. Quoted by S.C. Chatterjee, D.M. Datta, An Introduction to Indian Philosophy, p. 315.

28. Brahma sūtra, 2.1.27.

29. J. Mascaro. Himalaya of the Soul. The Wisdom of the East Series, Ed. Cranmer – Byng and Allan W.Watts.

30. Swamy Prabharananda and Frederic Manchester Breath of the Eternal. Pub. Vedānta Society of Southern California.

31. Louis Renou, Religions of Ancient, p. 48.

32. P.N. Rao, Introduction to Vedānta, p. 14.

33. M. Hiriyanna, Outlines of Indian Philosophy, Motilal Banarsidass Pub. Delhi, 2009, p. 18.

34. Kalidasa, Malavikagnimitra. i.1